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Yale Political Monthly

Volume Five Number Four May 1984

How Debate Died

Fareed R. Zakaria

Beyond Deterrence: The Search for Nuclear Options

Lawrence H. Goon

Nixon, Chile, and U.S. Covert Action

Roger Barnett

The Case for Atlantic Union

Adam Freedman

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Beyond Deterrence: The Search for Nuclear Options

Lawrence H. Goon

MANY CRITICS on the left seem to respond to the nuclear threat simply by emphasizing its horror, yet seek no intermediate and realistic solutions short of total disarmament. They rail against all limited nuclear war strategies, with little discrimination among them. Although they agree that the policy of mutual assured destruction (MAD), in which both sides rely on threats of massive retaliation to deter nuclear war, is indeed mad, they are opposed to counterforce planning and the like which, they insist, create the dangerous illusion that nuclear war can somehow be fought and won. They seem to forget that nuclear strategists, as much as they themselves, seek to deter, not fight, nuclear war. Albert Wohlstetter, one of the fathers of strategic nuclear doctrine, and others argue that the liberals' adherence to MAD is less moral than a strategy of counterforce and limited nuclear options: the targeting of innocents is less moral than the traditional war aims of targeting only military forces and seeking to limit civilian casualities.

As Richard Rosecrance states in his *Strategic Deterrence Reconsidered:*

> The object is deterrence, not revenge . . . In the case of an ex ante strategy, the intention is to make an opponent believe that if he were attacked, he could receive a swift and catastrophic retaliatory blow. But, as Herman Kahn was the first to recognize, the carrying out of any such massively punitive strike ex post [after the fact] was largely irrational. In cruelly punishing a blameless opposing population, it would achieve few rational objectives, and would provoke devastating attacks on the population of the retaliating country.

The key issue is whether planning for limited nuclear wars makes them more or less likely. Liberals cannot have it both ways: if the nuclear balance is such that it cannot be offset by increases in nuclear arsenals, it must be stable enough to withstand planning for limited nuclear scenarios within the structure of a second strike doctrine. MAD lacks credibility, and the U.S. must be able to respond on a limited level to contingencies other than an all-out nuclear attack. To attempt to do so by planning limited nuclear war not only strengthens deterrence, it reintroduces morality into war fighting by seeking ways to limit the damage of a possible nuclear war.

There is reason for concern, however, in the stance of the present administration, which has come into office with blustering rhetoric and a policy based on assumptions which are unsound. To many, the policies of the Reagan administration would seem to be a logical extension of limited nuclear war theories. Perhaps. What is different is the seeming nonchalance and lack of thought with which the administration discusses nuclear war. Reagan's approval of every new weapons system, even those thought to have been cancelled under the Carter administration, is cause enough for anxiety. One critic of the administration states that the danger is that the Reagan administration has come to accept theory as reality. Yet the original authors of the theories have sought to disassociate themselves from the doctrines that the administration has embraced. How did we get where we are, and what has influenced the course of the debate?

NUCLEAR DOCTRINE from the invention of the bomb through the Eisehower administration showed little appreciation of subtlety in the application of nuclear threats. It did not need to; the United States had overwhelming nuclear superiority. Dulles' strategy of "massive retaliation" stated that the United States would respond with nuclear weapons to any threats abroad. To a large extent, the strategy was also based on a "bigger bang for the buck"—that is, a substitution of nuclear weapons for more expensive manpower. The strategy, however, began to falter by the end of the Eisenhower administration, as it became obvious that the U.S. was not going to respond to every threat with nuclear weapons. A new, more flexible and credible threat would have to be established.

The new administration that came into office in January of 1961 was different from the previous administration not only in style, but in substance as well. The marked contrast between the old grandfather image of Eisenhower, and the youthful, exuberant image of Kennedy indicated the revolution in strategic thinking that was about to take place.

Lawrence H. Goon, '85, is in Calhoun.

One member of the new administration who embodied the new style was Robert McNamara, who would be Secretary of Defense through the Johnson administration. Like Kennedy himself, McNamara would take the "best and the brightest" and put their intellectual theories into practice. The leading civilian exponents of strategic thinking, mostly from the RAND Corporation in California, took up positions in McNamara's Department of Defense. Collectively, this group became known as the "whiz kids," a new, civilian, college-educated elite that took control of the Department of Defense from the hands of the old guard.

When McNamara took office in January of 1961, he was given two tasks by the President: first, close the missle gap: second, begin rationalizing force and defense planning at the lowest possible cost. McNamara dealt with the first problem rather quickly: the missle gap simply did not exist. He found the second task a bit more difficult. SIOP, the single integrated operational plan for nuclear strategy inherited by the Kennedy administration, followed the strategy of massive retaliation that had been publicly proclaimed by its predecessor. Created late in the Eisenhower administration, ostensibly to integrate targeting and deployment plans of nuclear warfare, SIOP amounted to a war plan that, instead of limiting and rationalizing strategy, was a plan for all-out war. According to SIOP, SAC would launch a strike against an "optimum mix" of targets—everything it had. SIOP would have amounted to the launching of 3423 nuclear weapons totaling 7847 megatons; it would have killed 285 million Russians and Chinese, and would have severely injured 40 million more, not counting Eastern Europe or fallout damage in the free world.

McNAMARA, horrified by this scenario, sought ways to bring nuclear weapons under control, to add options short of all-out nuclear war. He found an ally in William Kaufmann, who had been writing about the need for flexibility and options as early as 1956. Kaufmann had stated:

> Because the possibility of such destruction now exists, it becomes necessary to examine more closely the problems of limited war, for conflicts of this character do have a powerful rationale under present conditions. They may not be adequate substitutes for victory—although victory is a word with many meanings—but in principle, at least, they possess a number of other virtues. They enable us to escape from having to choose between retreat and nuclear holocaust.

Although Kaufmann was one of the earliest proponents of counterforce, the targeting of enemy weapons and forces instead of civilian populations, it was really invented by Bernard Brodie, a pioneer in strategic thinking. Brodie devised a war plan that would be less destructive and better able to achieve war objectives.

The strategy went that if the United States were forced to use atomic weapons, it would avoid hitting Soviet cities, launching instead a limited strike on military targets, retaining a sufficient reserve to coerce the Russians to surrender. If the Russians did not surrender, it argued, we might very well come back and attack their cities. In an influential study by RAND on the utility of counterforce and damage limiting strikes, counterforce was found to have a significant effect on the limitation of possible damage in a nuclear war.

In February, 1961 Kaufmann briefed McNamara on the counterforce/no cities proposal. As a result, McNamara incorporated it into the U.S. defense posture in a document know as SIOP 63. He saw counterforce as the only way to avoid the endless arms buildup and the senselessness of the doctrine of massive retaliation that had passed as nuclear strategy under the previous administration.

SIOP 63 ordered that targets in the Soviet Union be divided into five separate categories: 1) strategic forces, 2) air defense sites away from cities, 3) air defense sites closer to cities, 4) control and command centers, and 5) Soviet cities. It allowed for options combiningg these five categories, ranging from an initial counterforce option to successively more damaging options should the Soviets not capitulate.

McNamara made the policy public in a speech at the Commencement Exercises at the University of Michigan in 1962:

> The mere fact that no nation could rationally take steps leading to a nuclear war does not guarantee that a nuclear war could not take place . . . the prudent strategist must design his forces and plans with the terrible contingency of nuclear war in mind.
>
> The U.S. has come to the conclusion that to the extent feasible, basic military strategy in a possible general nuclear war should be approached in much the same way that more conventional military operations have been in the past. That is to say, principal military objectives, in the event of nuclear war stemming from a major attack on the alliance should be the destruction of the enemy's military forces, not of his civilian population.
>
> The very strength and nature of the alliance forces us to retain, even in the face of massive surprise attack, sufficient reserve striking power to destroy an enemy society if driven to it. In other words, we are giving a possible opponent the strongest imaginable incentive to refrain from striking our own cities.

Counterforce/no cities, as proposed by McNamara, had a number of problems. First, the level of technology in the 1960's was simply not able to keep up with doctrinal development. Intercontinental Ballistic Missiles (ICBMs) were not capable of carrying out true counterforce targeting. Although there was no question that ICBMs would reach their targets, their accuracy was questionable. When a high probability of targeting error is combined with a warhead of high and dirty yield, the probability of "collateral damage"—that is, the unintended damage to surrounding property and civilians—becomes so high as to make distinctions between countervalue and counterforce irrelevant.

Second, it is debatable whether counterforce is compatible with a second strike doctrine. The capability which was being pursued under McNamara of a survivable, accurate nuclear capability would give the U.S. a possible first strike capability. The doctrine, then, relied on the Soviets to trust us not to launch a preemptive disarming strike.

These factors, were, to a large part, responsible for the shift in McNamara's thinking away from counterforce to mutual assured destruction. McNamara came to doubt the utility of nuclear weapons, recognized that they were almost impossible to control, and began to conclude that it was the avoidance of war itself, rather than the avoidance of cities within war, that was the best direction for U.S. policy to take.

As he stated:

> Security depends upon assuming a worst possible case, and having the ability to cope with it. In that eventuality, we must be able to absorb the total weight of a nuclear attack on our country . . . and still be capable of damaging the aggressor to the point that his society would simply no longer be viable in 20th century terms.

The change to MAD reflected the new U.S. acceptance of the ability of the Soviets to inflict unacceptable damage on the United States. To McNamara, as long as the destructive capacity was mutual, neither side could limit damage to itself except through effective deterrence. To a large extent, then, MAD was a product of a growing Soviet threat and technological limits. While the development of ICBM capabilities on both sides made the mutual hostage relationship possible, the targeting inaccuracy made it possible to carry out only second-strike countervalue attacks. Thus the balance of terror could be said to be mutual and symmetrical. The best damage limitation was to limit war itself, and a relationship in which nuclear aggression was tantamount to suicide seemed the best way to secure that balance.

Although publicly McNamara proclaimed MAD as strategic doctrine, counterforce did not disappear from targeting plans. McNamara noted that countercity strikes were not the best way to use nuclear weapons, and to that extent, counterforce targeting was alive and well. Similarly, he launched a Minuteman II program to increase that missile's hard-kill capability. He also allowed research to proceed on MIRV (multiple independent reentry vehicle) which would have far-reaching consequences for nuclear doctrine.

Yet McNamara doubted the utility of nuclear weapons. He thought, and still thinks, that deterrence is the best form of damage limitation. But counterforce would come back to haunt him 10 years later in the hands of a newer and perhaps less cautious generation.

MAD was the accepted doctrine until the early 1970's, when improvements in missile technology (mainly in the areas of multiple warheads and guidance systems) made talk of counterforce and limited nuclear options favorable once again. Along similar lines, the achievement of parity with the Soviet Union, and the institutionalization of that parity has led to a search for a way out of MAD.

Strategic parity was institutionalized in 1972 with SALT I, which set ceilings on launchers, and gave the Soviets a numerical advantage. That advantage, however, was offset by U.S. MIRV capabilities and superior guidance technology. Nonetheless, there was a nagging suspicion, especially in more conservative circles, that the Soviets were aiming for superiority, not parity, and the SALT treaty gave them the ability to achieve it.

In spite of conservative objections, parity was enshrined in doctrine, under the heading of "essential equivalence."

The assumptions of parity and of mutual second strike capabilities seemed to lead to a static nuclear situation. Subtle pressures began to arise for ways out of nuclear stultification, and led to a desire for the U.S. to achieve some sort of dominance within the context of a nuclear conflict. Arms buildup was not a way out of MAD, since overwhelming U.S. nuclear superiority in the early 60's could not be converted into political power. One possiblity seemed to be a policy of limited options, the ability to respond up and down the nuclear ladder to deter Soviet actions, and end a war quickly should it ever occur.

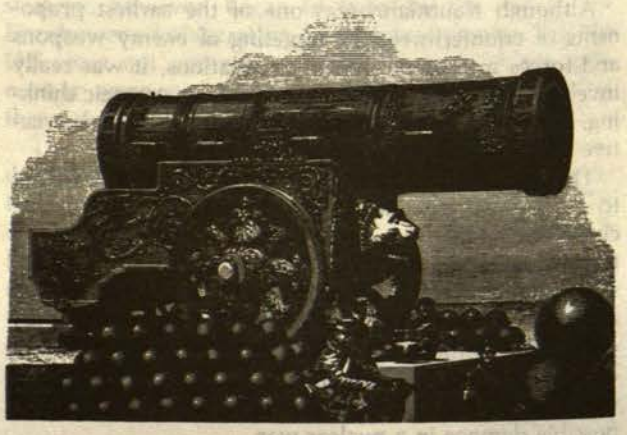
The Schlesinger Doctrine, written by Secretary of Defense James Schlesinger, was one such policy. It had obvious parallels to McNamara's counterforce/no cities proposal of 1962. Schlesinger criticized the concept of all-out retaliation as it was not credible. He saw that deterrence might fail in many ways, and saw the need to control nuclear war in such an event. He stated three assumptions that would shape the new strategy. It should 1) have a series of measured responses to aggression which bore some relation to the provocation, 2) have prospects of terminating hostilities before general nuclear war breaks out, and 3) leave some possibility of restoring deterrance.

The response to the Schlesinger Doctrine was muted, as it was difficult to argue against options per se. The doctrine did after all, seem to offer some way out of the nuclear dilemma, and enhance credibility.

As Richard Rosecrance stated:

> There seems to be little question that the Schlesinger strategy does improve the current position. The credibility of an all-out retaliatory attack on Soviet populations is now so low that the combination of credibility and capability factors offers a very small deterrent product. The increased probability of a much lighter attack seems to improve the net position.

The problem was that although the new doctrine improved options, the choices were still unpleasant. Its success depended, in no small part, on the willingness of the Soviets to play by the same rules. It was a second strike doctrine, which led to the assumption of probable massive damage to the United States in the absence of a Soviet doctrine of no cities. Given Soviet capabilities and rhetoric, there was no guarantee that the Soviets would not choose to retaliate massively. It did not make explicit how the United States would prevail in the event of a limited nuclear exchange, although it did use the phrase, "countervail." The Schlesinger Doctrine remained uncomfortably poised between two stances; it would come to its logical fruition in the next administration.



JIMMY CARTER rode into power on the promise of an open government and a new beginning in international relations, in marked contrast to the back door diplomacy of his predecessor. Carter had, in fact, come into office hoping to eliminate nuclear weapons completely. Harold Brown, his Secretary of Defense, had openly proclaimed skepticism regarding counterforce, and believed that the idea of prevailing in a nuclear war was unrealistic.

Their ideas began to change, however as Carter's proposals for deep arms cuts and human rights were all but laughed out of Moscow. United States humiliation in the Third World continued Russian testing of advanced weapons systems, and the rise of Zbigniew Brezinski within the Carter cabinet led to an increasingly hard line. In fact, with Presidential Directive 59 (PD59), the Carter administration came to embrace and clarify, in explicit form, those concepts of limited nuclear war that it had ininitially sought to repudiate.

For Harold Brown, the principles behind the conversion were the same as for those who had preceeded him in power. It was not a conversion of ends as much it was a conversion of means. Nuclear holocaust was to be avoided, and a range of options was better than no options at all. No matter how unlikely the possibility of controlling nuclear war, the possibility of having options other than Armageddon seemed to be a sound one.

PD 59 was first publicly addressed at the commencement exercises of the Naval War College at Newport, R.I., in 1980, and subsequently clarified in Department of Defense statements, although the document itself remains classified. It was not as new a policy as much of the media thought. But rather a very clear and refined articulation of the Schlesinger Doctrine and the preceding concepts to which it was indebted.

Brown reaffirmed that the countervailing strategy was a deterrent strategy. In spite of the appearance that much attention was being paid to nuclear war scenarios, deterrence was not being undermined:

> In our analysis and planning. We are necessarily giving greater attention to how a nucular war would actually be fought by both sides if deterrence fails. There is no contradiction between this focus on how a war would be fought and what its results would be, and our purpose of insuring continued peace through mutual deterrence. Indeed, this focus helps us achieve deterrence and peace, by ensuring that an ability to retaliate is fully credible.

Deterrence or, as it was now called, countervailence, was to be achieved through flexibility and the ability to convince the Soviets that "they will be successfully opposed at any level of aggression they choose, and that no plausible outcome at any level of conflict could represent 'success' for them by any reasonable definition of success."

PD 59 was a strategy of limited nuclear options born under the aegis of the RAND theorists like Kaufmann, introduced (and later repudiated) by Robert McNamara at Ann Arbor in 1962, and eventually revived by James Schlesinger in 1973. What was new was the clarity with which it was articulated, and the detail in which a scenario for a future limited war was presented. Somewhat disturbing was the implication that the United States could prevail (or countervail) in a nuclear conflict, although that had really been the rationale behind the strategy from 1973 at least.

Yet it is important to remember that it was, above all, a strategy of deterrence, a set of theoretical options that were to be followed should deterrence fail. Brown stated repeatedly that he "remained highly skeptical that escalation of a limited nuclear exchange can be controlled, or that it could be stopped, short of an all-out massive exchange." The succeeding administration would not embrace any such assumption.

REGARDING the policies of the Reagan administration to some extent the strategy itself is an extension of PD 59. What is troublesome is the rhetoric of force, bluster, and indiscretion that passes for foreign policy. Unlike Brown, those in power in the Reagan administration do not seem to doubt the ability to control nuclear war; instead, they seem to think not only that it can be fought and won, but that it should be, and are preparing for that eventuality. Rhetoric about the "evil empire" and approval of every new weapons system whether or not justified by a strategy, demonstrates a sensibility (or lack thereof) that can best be evaluated by quoting from members of the administration:

> Dig a hole, cover it with a couple of doors, and then throw three feet of dirt on top . . . It's the dirt that does it . . . if there are enough shovels to go around, everybody's going to make it.
>
> —T.K. Jones, Deputy Undersecretary of Defense for Strategic and Theater Nuclear Forces

The administration has since "muzzled" Jones.

What has happened in the Reagan administration is that those who were during the previous administration a minority on the far right have now become part of the mainstream. Colin Grey, now a member of the General Advisory Committee on Arms Control and Disarmament, advocates a shift in U.S. strategic thinking away from deterrence, and towards a strategy of fighting and winning a nuclear war, not avoiding it.

It is, ultimately, intentions that have shaped nuclear doctrine. From the time the nuclear genie was released, nuclear strategy sought a way to avoid the apocalypse. The search for options somehow to limit damage should deterrence fail, has evolved from vague images of limited nuclear strikes to the specific scenarios of PD 59 made possible by third generation nuclear weapons.

This search cannot be seen as immoral, as its history is one of intelligent men seeking to impose order on an irrational subject: the destruction of the human race. Without options, we seemed doomed to capitulation or death; we must at least continue the search. To forget the goal of nuclear options, however, to become entranced with means over ends, is to dance blindfolded on the edge of the abyss. Doctrine is, after all, only theory; no one knows in reality how a nuclear war would be fought. To attempt to actually fight one would not just be senseless —it would be evil.

Nixon, Chile, and U.S. Covert Action

Roger Barnett

CONTRARY to the sworn testimony and public statements of top United States officials, covert involvement on the part of this country in Chile between 1963 and 1973 did exist, and, further, represented a massive campaign to block the Chilean constitutional process. In 1972 alone, over three million dollars was spent in an attempt to create domestic strife in Chile, with the hope of eventually overthrowing the democratically elected Salvador Allende regime. Whether it was morally wrong for the world's largest and most outspoken proponent of democracy to undermine another democracy or whether our attempts to economically "squeeze" Chile led to its military coup in 1973 are important questions; this essay, however, is concerned not with the consequences of United States intervention but with the decision-making process that led to that intervention.*

Covert involvement in Chile from 1970 until 1973 was exercised in a fundamentally undemocratic manner. Any democratic decision-making process involves accountability of the person who makes the decisions and a debate of some sort culminating in a choice of one among various options. The wealth of information turned up in the various congressional hearings and reports between 1971 and 1975 leaves no doubt that decisions with regard to U.S. covert aid to Chile were made through the exclusion of key points of view and with an attitude of impunity. The evidence available raises a number of questions about the covert action of the United States government.

Between 1963 and 1973 the CIA spent $8 million on propaganda for elections and support of political parties in Chile, $4.3 million for disseminating propaganda and supporting mass media, $.9 million on supporting private sector organizations and $.2 million on promotion of a military coup. It engaged in propaganda, political action, and military projects ranging from subsidizing two news services to the support of a women's group hostile to the Allende government. The most determined efforts made by the CIA to influence events in Chile were their election programs, which funded over half of the Christian Democratic campaign in the early 1970's. In addition, the CIA established relations with various multi-national corporations, especially ITT, and set up contacts enabling these companies to pass funds to non-socialist parties. (In his testimony before the Senate Foreign Relations Sub-committee on Multi-National Corporations in 1973, Charles Meyer, the Assistant Secretary of State for Inter-American Affairs said, "We were consistent in that we financed no candidates, no political parties before or after September 8 or September 14 . . . The policy of the United States was that Chile's problem was a Chilean problem to be settled by Chile.")

In the period between 1970 and 1973 there were two phases of official U.S. policy and two tracks of covert action undertaken by the CIA in response to the possibility and ultimate realization of Allende's quest for the presidency.

The main initiating force of the U.S. covert action in Chile was the so-called 40-committee—a sub-cabinet-level body of the Executive branch which reviewed proposed covert actions. Members included the Under Secretary of State for Political Affairs, the Deputy Secretary of Defense, the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, and the Director of Central Intelligence. The committee was chaired by Henry Kissinger, the President's Assistant for National Security Affairs.

ON MARCH 1, 1969, the Chilean election reflected an increase in support for the National Party headed by Salvador Allende and a resulting loss in strength of the Christian Democratic Party, headed by Salvador Allende and a resulting loss in strength of the Christian Democratic Party, headed by Jorge Allessandri. On April 15 the 40-committee met and discussed whether or not something sould be done with respect to the upcoming Chilean elections in September. Official U.S. policy at this time was that no support, not even covert, should be given to any one candidate or party in Chile. A general covert "spoiling" plan was authorized instead in an attempt to defeat Allende.

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*The primary sources of information on U.S. covert involvement in Chile for this essay were the transcripts of hearings from the U.S. House of Representatives Armed Services and International Relations Committees and the U.S. Senate Foreign Policy, Foreign Relations, and Intelligence Committees.

Allende won the 1970 national election with 36.8 percent of the vote—one percent more than Allessandri. According to the Chilean constitution the president must be confirmed by a vote in the Senate, which would take place two months after the election. All previous winners in national elections had been confirmed by the congressional vote. In response to the unanticipated Allende victory, the 40-committee met twice in early September and authorized $250,000 for Ambassador Korry's use in order to swing congressional votes for the Christian Democrat candidate Allessandri.

On September 15 at a private meeting with CIA Director Richard Helms, President Nixon made clear to Helms in certain terms that he did not want Allende to reach office, and that U.S. actions should follow along two separate tracks.

Track I consisted of all covert actions approved by the 40-committee designed to create a situation in Chile which would prevent Allende's confirmation by the senate either through political or military means. Track II consisted of those actions, begun without the knowledge of the State Department and the ambassador, leading directly toward a military coup.

On October 22, after two unsuccesful attempts to abduct General Rene Schneider, the chief military officer and also a strict constructionalist opposed to a coup, a third attempt by right wing Chilean army generals ended in Schneider's murder. On October 24, 1970, Allende was elected president, 153-35 over Allessandri.

After Allende's inauguration, President Nixon declared in his State of the World Address of 1971 that "we are prepared to have the kind of relationship with the Chilean government that it is prepared to have with us." This "cool, but correct" policy became the official policy. At the same time, the 40-committee was authorizing over $7 million to opposition groups during the Allende presidency. In addition, National Security Decision Memorandum 93 stated that U.S. pressure was to be maximized on Allende in order to hinder consolidation of his government. Other countries were urged to do the same.

On September 29, 1971, Nathaniel Davis replaced Edward Korry in the role of U.S. Ambassador to Chile in a switch which reflected a more hardline approach towards the possibility of military action against Allende, something to which Korry was vehemently opposed. The same day, the Chilean government assumed operation of the Chilean telephone company, 70 percent of which was owned by ITT. In reaction to this expropriation, the 40-committee increased its authorization of a loan to opposition forces of Allende's government. Finally, two years later, the Chilean military overthrew the "great socialist experiment."

PRIOR to the Nixon Administration, the State Department was the Executive agency most responsible for policy making. In a series of departmental changes, Nixon and Kissinger proceeded to wrest that power from the State Department and make it their exclusive province. The general trend was one of centralization of power.

Nixon's new system revived the National Security Council, which had been created in 1947 for the purpose of "set[ting] forth the major foreign policy problems facing the president, discussing the options available to him, and recommending courses of action."

Publicly stated, the purpose of this new system was "to ensure that the president of the United States does not hear just what he wants to hear, which is always a temptation of White House staffers, but that he hears points of view covering the spectrum . . . and also to have a very strong Secretary of State." In actuality, the NSC system had just the opposite effect of what Nixon publicly declared—it limited the range of policy alternatives presented to the president, limited dissent, limited any control of the president's action, and completely bypassed the State Department.

Through the revival of the National Security Council, and through the appointment of Kissinger as the chair of its most important committees, the president could in effect exercise his whim in foreign policy regardless of the input and attempted restraint of other U.S. officials.

In his hearings on nomination for Secretary of State, Henry Kissinger explained why the State Department declined in its policy making aspect during the Nixon Administration: "It is easier to make decisions rapidly in a small circle . . . it has also to do with the internal organization of the State Department . . . for the State Department has not had the quality of producing policy options, but rather confined itself to drafting the instructions."

Kissinger's predilection for a small inner circle of decision makers meant that there was less input into the decision making process and hence less room for the general foreign policy of Nixon to be opposed, even though it contradicted the opinions of experts and intelligence gatherers.

The president's view of Allende's election in Chile is summed up in a statement by Kissinger:

> "I do not think we should delude ourselves that an Allende takeover in Chile would not present massive problems for U.S. and for democratic forces in Latin American and, indeed, to the whole Western Hemisphere. What would happen to the Western Hemisphere Defense Board or the Organization of American States and so forth is extremely problematical."

This "domino theory" doctrine can be characterized as Nixon's personal policy because of the considerable differences between his perceptions and how the government intelligence specialists evaluated the effects of the Allende takeover.

Policy was decided by Nixon in conflict with what the intelligence estimates were saying because of the president's power to make public policy. In fact, it seems that the elevation of Chile as vital to U.S. interests after the September 4 election of Allende was arbitrarily based on the extreme fears of Nixon and not on concrete intelligence reports. By developing a personal policy the president stifle input from subordinates in national decision making because of bureaucratic pressure. In his testimony before the Senate Intelligence Committee, CIA Latin American director Thomas Karemessins stated that Kissinger "left no doubt in my mind that he was under the heaviest pressure to get this accomplished, and he in turn was placing us under the heaviest pressure to get it accomplished."

THE 40-committee, although consisting of only five people, contained representatives from each major executive agency. There was input from organizations with different aspirations, there was debate and there was dissent.

The system once worked. In December of 1969 a joint embassy/CIA proposal from Santiago outlined operations for an anti-Allende campaign. But it was withdrawn upon the disapproval of the State Department. Eventually, in 1970, the 40-committee approved the embassy/CIA proposal, and in a vote to increase the funding by $300,000 the State Department Representatives assented, yet "with reluctance." They spoke against the plan. There was debate. The plan was deferred until after the results of the election were learned. Dissenting opinions were heard and incorporated in the policy.

The victory for democratic decision making was short-lived, because it was precisely the debate displayed in the 40-committee that triggered Nixon to bypass the State Department completely. When Allende was elected President and when Nixon met with Richard Helms, nine points were discussed:

One in ten chance, perhaps, but save Chile.
Worth spending
Not concerned with risks involved
No involvement of embassy
$10,000,000 available, more if necessary
Full-time job—best men we have
Game plan
Make the economy scream
48 hours for plan of action

At this meeting, recorded in Helms' handwritten notes, the distinction between Tracks I and II began.

One segment of Nixon's meeting with Helms, the economic action, was made into a coordinated inter-departmental policy, while another was explicitly ordered not to include State, the embassy, or the ambassador.

Rooted in the line "make the economy scream," the proposal to adopt a policy of economic pressure against Chile was brought up in the next meeting of the 40-committee. The State Department was then directed by the 40-committee to contact American businessmen in an attempt to put even greater pressure on the Allende government. Economic policy toward Chile was a coordinated effort of the State, Treasury, and Commerce Departments, and the CIA and individual businessmen.

On Nixon's orders, however, the CIA attempted to foment a military coup against Allende between the time of his victory in the national election and his confirmation by the senate some five weeks later. The reason for Nixon's disregard of official U.S. policy, of the opinions of the ambassador and State Department, of intelligence reports, and of democratic principles, was his desire to avoid dissent.

On September 14, the day before Nixon's meeting with Helms, the 40-committee received the results of its previous request for a "cold blooded" assessment of "the pros and cons and problems and prospects involved should a Chilean military coup be organized now with U.S. assistance."

Ambassador Korry had responded by stating, "Opportunities for further significant U.S. action with the Chilean military are nonexistent." The CIA's response, as summarized by Kissinger's assistant, was very similar to Korry's; "military action was impossible; the military is incapable and unwilling to seize power. We have no capability to motivate or instigate a coup."

Nixon knew exactly how key government officials felt about the possibility of a military coup. He therefore did not inform anyone who would not agree to his directive. He completely disregarded what the best informed minds in Chile had to say about the prospects of his personal policy, which at this stage was "get rid of Allende no matter what the costs." Helms noted that after his meeting with Nixon his "heart sank because . . . the possibility of something like this seemed to me at that time to be just as remote as anything could be."

The decision to attempt to foment a military coup between September and November of 1970 was in every way a purposeful evasion of a democratic decision making process. Known dissenters were not informed, so that debate would not occur. Expert testimony was completely disregarded so that there was no discussion, no debate, and, further, no accountability for the decisions the president himself authorized. The centralization of authority under the president, rather than the State Department, the personal attitudinal involvement of Nixon in determining America's policy towards Chile, bureaucratic intimidation and pressure, purposeful avoidance of dissent, and disregard of experts' opinions all helped to create this non-democratic process.

WAS THIS a result of a particular president, or is it an inherent part of the ambiguity of covert authorization and accountability and the vagueness of the relations among the varous executive branch agencies? Part of the problem of covert action is that the legal basis for it and the lines of authority and command which govern it are so ambiguous as to leave open virtually any interpretation the president desires. It is, therefore, almost impossible to prove that some action is against the letter of the law. In addition, there are inherent problems in a system which relies on secrecy, compartmentalization, circumlocution, and the avoidance of clear responsibility.

In its own memoranda on the legality of its operations, the CIA concludes that it should work in some undefined way consistent with general U.S. foreign policy. With the president determining policy, the CIA can, therefore, legally carry out his will to the exclusion of other departments. The CIA in effect does what it is told by the president and provides a temptation for the chief executive officer to carry out policies without consulting other officials.

There are also significant problems with authorization since its power is based on essentially undefinable terms such as "vital interest" and "national security" and "political sensitivity." For example, the CIA decides which covert action projects are submitted for approval by the 40-committee based on the agency's own determination of the "political sensitivity."

Another problem concerning authorization is that once a project is approved, it is not clear what license the CIA has to insure that the project is a success—is necessary escalation included in the original authorization? Probably the most problematic aspect of covert action is the

principle of plausible denial, the practice of concealing CIA covert actions from general knowledge and conducting them in a manner that, if discovered, allows the United States in general, or officials in particular, to plausibly deny any role in the questioned actions. The extension of this doctrine has tremendous implications for the lack of responsibility of government officials and the CIA to Congress and other agencies.

Yet another factor contributing to the ambiguity of laws governing the decision making process is the lack of consistency and precedent. No Congress is going to legislate precisely U.S. actions abroad since no one can predict what situations may arise. In addition, the president is given the authority to do virtually anything "in the vital interest of national security of our country." Since "vital interest" and "national security" cannot be defined specifically, any presidential action can be justified.

Nixon's actions demonstrate the leeway given the president in defining national security. Certain established precedents which have governed the implementation of foreign policy were completely ignored by Nixon and Kissinger:

1) The 40-committee is supposed to authorize the funding of covert action carried on by the CIA. Yet, out of the $8 million authorized between 1970 and 1973, the committee approved only a quarter of it.

2) The State Department has traditionally implemented policy and was intended to supervise covert actions, as outlined in the National Security Act of 1947. However, Nixon revived the National Security Council to reduce the State Department's role in policy making and went so far as to exclude it from any knowledge of certain covert actions taken in 1970.

3) The definitive description of the authority of the ambassador over American operations in the country of his service was set forth in a letter of President Kennedy in 1961. Kennedy stated, "You [ambassadors] are in charge of the entire U.S. diplomatic mission, and I shall expect to supervise all of its operations. The mission includes you to supervise all of its operations. The mission includes Foreign Service, but also the representatives of all other United States agencies which have programs or activities in_____.' Yet Nixon explicitly chose not to inform ambassador Korry about CIA operations in his own country—an action which has no precedent.

As Chief Executive Officer, Nixon could avoid all the precedents and vague laws governing the use of covert action. But in doing so he eliminated the two central aspects of the democratic decision making process: responsibility to an outside authority and some kind of debate. The question that confronts us after Chile, is, can covert action ever by carried out democratically? Can there be a resolution of the seeming conflict between "legitimate secrecy" and "irresponsible concealment"?



THERE has to be some kind of oversight, some kind of third party input, to keep covert actions from getting out of hand.

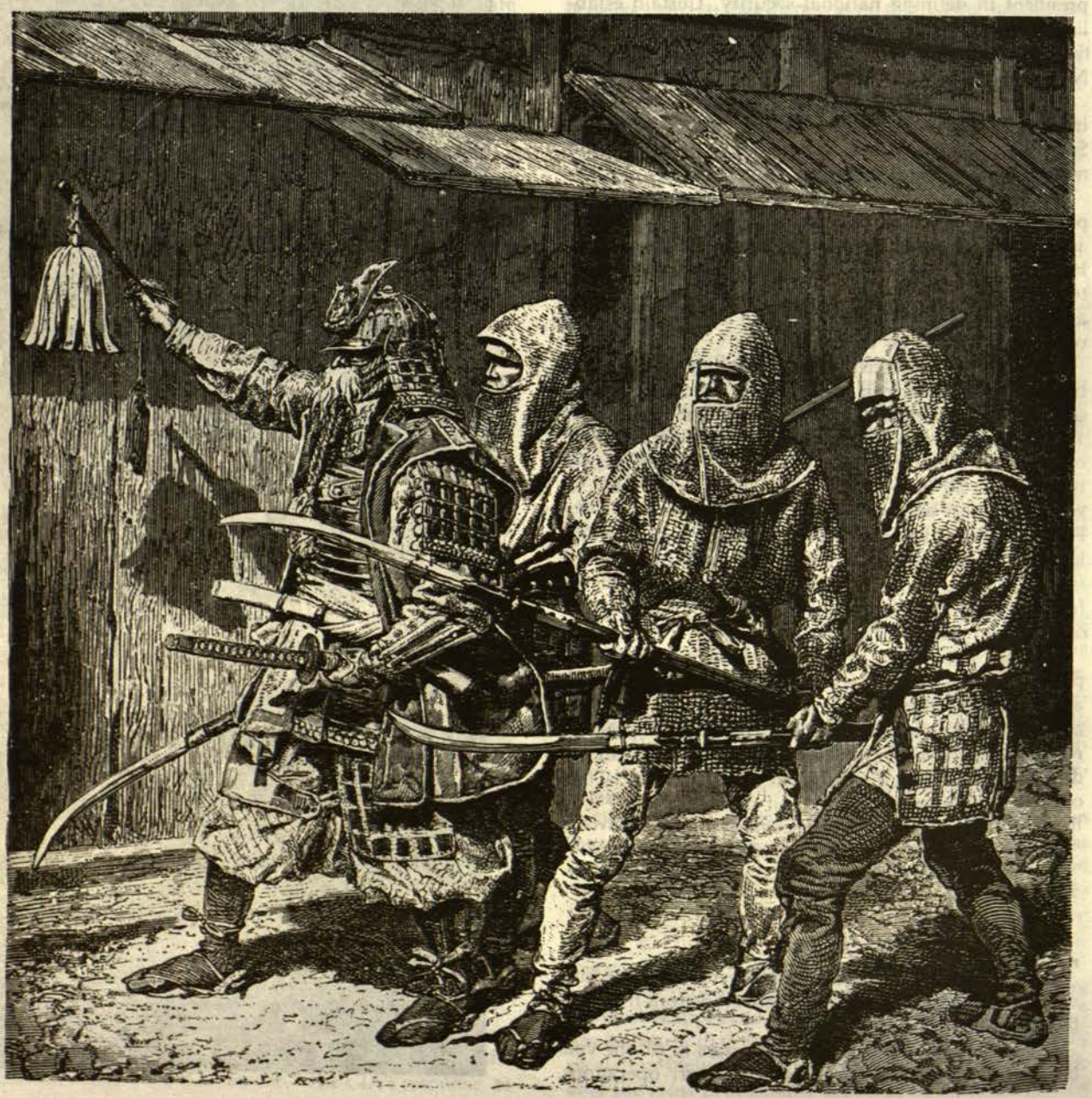
One would naturally look to Congress to fill the void because it controls the funding for covert operations.

One of the more remarkable revelations of the Chilean affair is the complete lack of Congressional oversight, the blame for which goes to both the administration and to Congress itself. According to an article in the *Washington Post*, "Congressional oversight of CIA operations has been almost a laughing stock on Capitol Hill." Members of Congress either feel like Senator Symington, that "spying is spying, you have to make up your mind that you are going to have an intelligence agency connected with such, you shut your eyes some, and take what's coming," or they feel like Rep. Nedzi, that "foreign policy is outside his committee's jurisdiction."—the end result being that congressional oversight is not exercised.

On the other hand, even when Congressional oversight is taken seriously by members of Congress, problems stemming from the Executive branch limit its effect. The principle of Executive privilege plagues Congressional hearings. At any time, the privilege can be invoked through the all-justifying concept "national security." Completely contradictory testimony also inhibits Congressional fact-finding and displays a disdain for the legal proceedings and powers of a Congressional hearing. In short, Congressional committees as they are now established cannot provide a great deal of oversight.

The problem lies in the essentially undefinable terms "vital interest" and "national security" which justify avoidance of any restraint. One can read anything into these terms; yet it would be worse if Congress legislated precise definitions in matters of "vital concern to U.S. interests," for then ours would be a policy of inflexibility—the exact antithesis of how foreign policy should be handled.

This paradox of having to leave room for undemocratic decision making so that the democratic system as a whole can survive is based on trust. In the light of the abuses of the Nixon administration, however, trust in the President may not be enough.



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How Debate Died

Fareed R. Zakaria

ON A WEDNESDAY night in 1938, the Yale Political Union meets in the debating chambers of its house on Park Street. The 150 members are aligned by party, Left facing Right, like England's House of Commons. William P. Bundy, President of the Union, bangs the gavel and begins the meeting; tonight's resolution advocates a Republican victory in the forthcoming elections. Senator Robert Taft has flown up from Washington to make the proposing speech, which he does with great relish. McGeorge Bundy, Chairman of the Liberal Party, opposes, presenting his arguments with biting sarcasm and attacking Taft relentlessly. Conservatives rally behind the Senator, while Laborites and Liberals (including Union Vice-President Kingman Brewster) keep the pressure on. After several hours of logic, rhetoric and wit the motion fails.

In 1984, Union debates are held in a classroom; members sit on collapsible metal chairs in a contrived attempt to create the sense of a debating chamber. When the guest speaker finishes his speech there is an exodus and all but 15 of the 75 or so members present leave. The floor debate begins with the same five people speaking, usually four on the right to one on the left. They present hard facts and cold logic and in 45 minutes a vote is taken and the somewhat bored members trudge back home. The full membership of the Union is only seen at celebrity events, when a William Buckley, Gary Hart, or Caspar Weinberger speaks.

WHY HAS DEBATE at Yale fallen to such a pathetic level? The answer is simply that debate has never been part of the American tradition. In the 1930's, '40's, and '50's Yale admitted an exclusive, predominantly WASP elite which comfortably adopted one of the grandest English traditions as its own. Once Yale began to admit a cross-section of society and reflect the whole of America, it became impossible to sustain an alien tradition. The two debating societies on campus had to adjust to this situation. The Yale Political Union became a speaker's bureau, gaining many members who wanted to see celebrities. Debate still existed, but on a much smaller and very different scale. The Yale Debate Association, like many of its counterparts in the Ivy League, became a frivolous "joke" debating forum with its emphasis on word play and invective.

American perceptions of debate are very different from European perceptions, especially English ones. Americans see debate as essentially a method of constructing a tight argument with many facts and figures and reeling them off from the podium. Organized high school debate in America consists of teenagers rattling off prepared and numbered arguments rapid-fire, frothing at the mouth when they see that their time is nearing a close. Most debaters at the Union today either recite a memorized speech or read one from the podium. It is usually an excellent argument for the case; it is also almost always boring, rehashing old facts, repeating tired logic, sounding like the *Readers Digest*.

The Oxford Union, Britain's most hallowed college debating society, stands in stark contrast. Speakers wear black tie and Union officers white tie and tails. The 175-year-old debating chamber holds about 750 (the Union has 3500 Oxford members). The two guest speakers only speak after one and a half hours of student debate. Students speak with great style and flourish, modulating their voices from a whisper to a passionate crescendo. They use simple arguments, focusing in on a few facts and illustrating them with anecdotes, weaving this combination into an elegant speech that provokes the other members to respond. Rarely are speeches balanced; never are they boring. Audience heckling adds to the drama; hecklers punctuate the speaker's sentences with short quips, rather than crudely attempting to drown him out (as with Caspar Weinberger). Europeans do not consider debate to be a substitute for a written thesis, as Americans do. For them the written word and the spoken word are two entirely different things.

The dry method of American debate has a predictable outcome. People do not want to listen to well-balanced arguments they have read before blandly recited once again. And while they may be entertained by the Debate Team' style, they learn nothing from it. The object of debate is to convince others of the correctness of your

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positions. To do this it is imperative that a) you have a position and b) your audience does not sleep through your speech. The English tradition of using fewer facts and more rhetoric works well. It provokes, informs, and entertains. Hundreds attend debates.

The American political system is partly responsible for the sorry state of American debate. Congress is not nearly as important as Parliament; since the entire British cabinet must justify all its actions at question hours and debates, the House of Commons is the focus of political discussion. Debates on matters of importance often go on through the night with lively discussion between the ruling party and the opposition. Most major governmental policies are first revealed in Parliament. In contrast, almost the only time anyone makes (or rather reads) a speech in Congress is to go on the record to show his constituents or financiers that he is promoting their interests. The procedures which enable a member to revise and extend his remarks ensures that nothing controversial will ever be said on the floor. One reads of Robert LaFollete's famous orations in the Senate in the 1920's and '30's; most of these speeches were heard by perhaps 10 Senators. In the debate over the recent controversial bill on prayer in public schools the Senate chamber was often nearly deserted, while the cloak rooms (where much back-stage maneuvering takes place) were bustling as always.

IT IS CRITICAL for a democratic political system built around public debate that its citizens be articulate and able to present and argue their positions persuasively. Since its graduates will be leaders in many walks of life, Yale has a special responsibility to train its students to speak with cogency and grace. It has largely abdicated this responsibility. It no longer offers courses in rhetoric, it no longer actively encourages political debate, it no longer prizes articulation. Yale alone has not been responsible for its decline, nor can Yale alone resurrect it. But it should be noted here at least: while singing and dancing have become forms of political expression, debate has died.



The Case for Atlantic Union

Adam Freedman

"WE must all hang together, or we will all hang separately," said Benjamin Franklin as he urged unity among the former British colonies of America. The plan for unity finally adopted by the young nation—the Philadelphia constitution of 1787—is generally recognized as the first federal system of divided regional and national responsibilities. Today, some sixteen nations operate on similar systems, among them Australia, Austria, Canada, India, Mexico, and West Germany.

During the past 70 years, various groups have formed to advocate the creation of an international federal union. Such groups have generally fallen into two categories: world federalists and inter-democratic federalists. The latter have sought a union of the world's democracies, thinking that only they can successfully integrate their political systems. Although the notion of a federated world is appealing to many, the movement for a more selective inter-democratic union has been able to accomplish more politically here and abroad.

Since the 1940's, this movement has been led by the Washington, D.C.-based organization, Federal Union, Inc., which has advocated a union of the Western democracies as a first step towards a union of all democracies. The formation of the North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) in the 1940's and the evolution of the European Economic Community in the 1950's were seen as indications of growing Western unity, and helped Federal Union to attract supporters in the United States and Europe. Indeed, in the 1960 Presidential campaign, both Kennedy and Nixon favored steps toward an "Atlantic community"; the realization of Federal Union's goal seemed almost inevitable. During this period, it grew into a prestigious political group with an international membership and an internationally-circulated magazine.

Federal Union still exists. Since the 1960's, however, its membership and activities have steadily declined. The organization is no longer part of the mainstream Washington establishment and, not surprisingly, the goal of an Atlantic community and a broader union of democracies is no longer part of mainstream political dialogue.

Adam Freedman, '87, spent last summer coordinating European support for an Atlantic Convention.

TO UNDERSTAND the rise and fall (and possible resurrection) of the Federal Union movement, it is helpful to know something of its history. In the years prior to World War I, when Europeans were bickering over the balance of power, a number of Americans saw world federation as the best guarantor of peace. Their efforts lost steam when the United States entered World War I. By choosing sides, America seemed to be recognizing that there were irreconcilable differences between the combatants. When President Wilson offered his own solution of a League of Nations, enough senators had decided against further involvement in European affairs to preclude United States membership. Internationalism had reached a nadir in the United States.

The idea of a more limited international union, however, caught on in Europe. In 1922, an association called The European Movement was formed to promote a confederation of European nations. The group received support from such statesmen as Aristide Briand, Konrad Adenauer, and Winston Churchill. Although interest in European confederation waned during the political upheavals of the '30's, the idea captured the imagination of Clarence Streit, an American working in Europe as a correspondent for the *New York Times*. Streit set forth his idea of a union of Western democracies in his 1939 book, *Union Now*.

Selected as one of the ten best non-fiction books of 1939 by *Current History* and praised by *The Nation*, *The New Republic*, and *Time*, *Union Now* was an instant success. As Lord Lothian stated, the book explores the history of Western civilization to discover "the fundamental cause of the return of militarism and war, unemployment and intensified economic depression." With the outbreak of war the book became a source of hope for many in the allied nations. Military leaders saw Atlantic union as the best defense against belligerent powers. The threat of Hitler made the loss of national sovereignty seem a small price to pay for a unified Western defense. At the same time, intellectuals heralded Streit's book, an eloquent defense of traditional Western values, as the democratic answer to Marx's *Capital*.

The United States' distance from the war allowed Americans to translate support for Atlantic union into political action. In 1940 several small groups which had formed during the '30's merged under Streit's leadership

to form Federal Union. During the war, it argued that allied disunity was undermining the war effort; the group lobbied American politicians to take the lead in advocating Atlantic union.

FOLLOWING World War II, its members and supporters played a crucial role in the foundation of NATO. In a 1983 interview, Ambassador Theodore Achilles said: "If it hadn't been for *Union Now*, I don't think there would have been a NATO Treaty. A lot of people got hold of that book and read it . . . From here came the whole idea of Atlantic unity. I don't think anyone had given it serious thought before." Supporters of Federal Union persuaded Dean Acheson to accept Article II of the NATO Treaty, which suggests future efforts to strengthen the ties among the NATO countries. In the 1950's federal unionists in Europe helped to bring about the European Economic Community (EEC). The preamble of the EEC Treaty states that the community's ultimate goal is a European political union.

As Federal Union continued to grow, it embraced the goal of a broader union which would include such nations as Japan, but worked for an Atlantic union as a first step. This seemed close at hand when, in 1960, members of Federal Union succeeded in securing legislation for an Atlantic Convention to explore ways to strengthen the NATO alliance. In 1962, ninety citizen delegates from twelve NATO countries gathered in Paris. They issued a declaration which was a solid endorsement of the classical liberal tradition and of Streit's goals. The final recommendation of the convention was a call to action: "That the NATO governments promptly establish a special governmental commission to draw up plans within two years for the creation of a true Atlantic Community suitably organised to meet the political, military and economic challenge of this era."

Of course, the NATO governments did not act promptly; national politicians put the idea of an Atlantic Community on the back burner in order to tend to domestic concerns. Yet the memory of World War II and growing fear of the Soviet Union lead many to view an Atlantic Community as the only response to Soviet expansionism. By 1972, the International Association for Federal Union had been formed to organize foreign supporters while Youth for Federal Union had been formed to organize students.

Unfortunately, this division of resources was ill-timed. With detente, the idea of an Atlantic alliance lost its immediacy for many. A generation that had experienced Vietnam was uninterested in contributing to an organization so strongly associated with NATO. Moreover, the very establishment of NATO and other international organizations made many supporters complacent. Both the International Association and Youth for Federal Union declined in the 1970's, and Federal Union's magazine stopped publication. Although Federal Union acquired impressive Washington offices in order to maintain a high profile membership and activities continued to shrink.

BY 1982, the organization was in transition. The Executive Director, Henry Smith III, a former U.S. Representative from New York, was preparing a change in Federal Union's staff and office location. In 1983, Smith hired a new director of administration and director of education. The new staff decided to return to the Atlantic Convention strategy of 1960, but with provisions to ensure that a second convention would have more authority than the first. Senator Mark O. Hatfield (R-OR) agreed to help draft a new Atlantic Convention resolution. Two Federal Union representatives (including the author) were sent to meet with politicians in Britain in order to gauge British support for the convention idea.

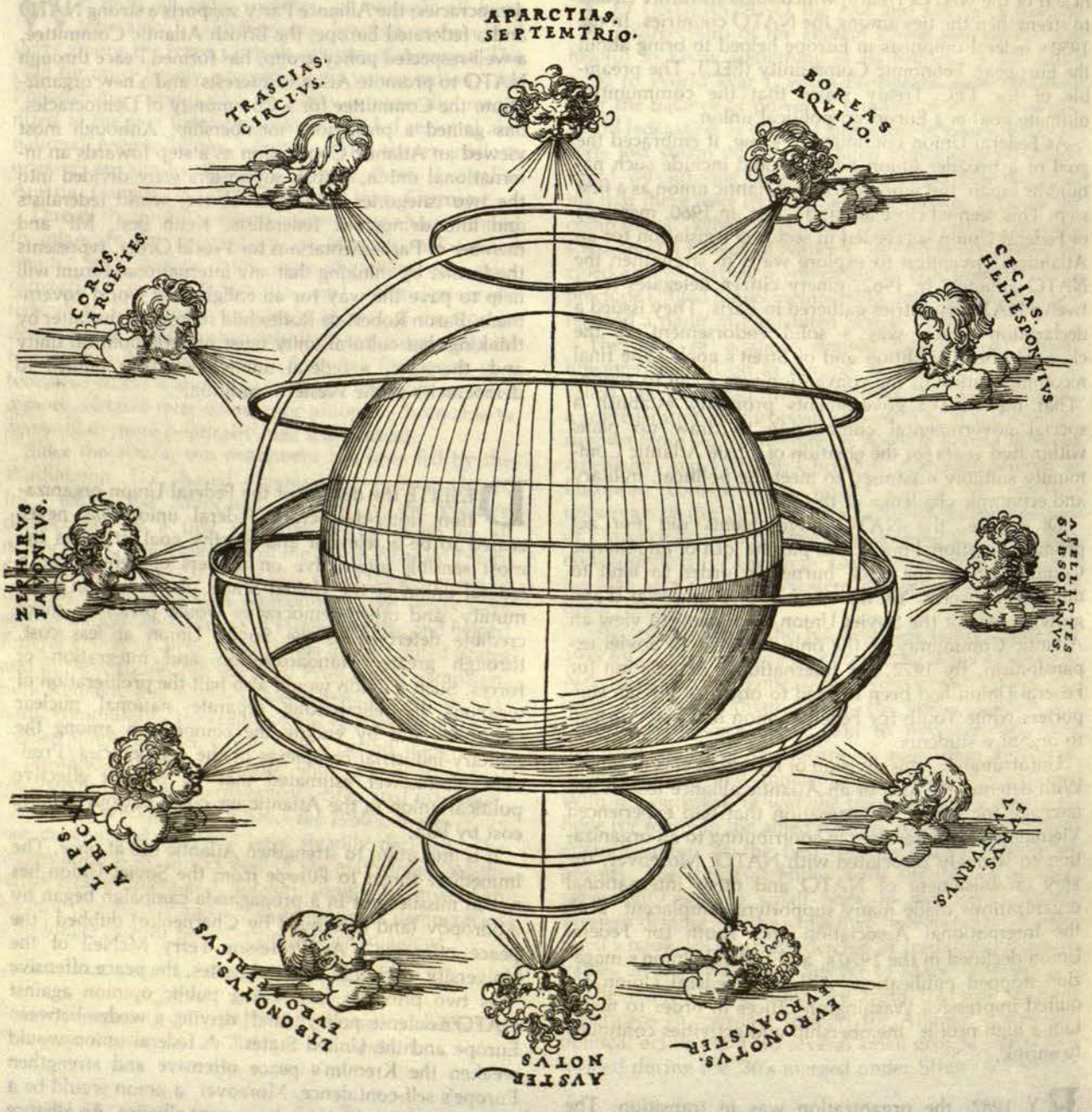
They met with representatives from the major parties, British supporters of Federal Union, and activists and academics. The mood in Britain was generally favorable towards Atlantic initiatives. The Conservative Party is coordinating the International Democrat Union to foster communication among politicians in the world's democracies; the Alliance Party supports a strong NATO and a federated Europe; the British Atlantic Committee, a well-respected policy group, has formed Peace through NATO to promote Atlantic interests; and a new organization, the Committee for a Community of Democracies, has gained a prestigious membership. Although most viewed an Atlantic Convention as a step towards an international union, British supporters were divided into the two categories mentioned above: world federalists and inter-democratic federalists. Keith Best, MP and member of Parliamentarians for World Order, represents the former by thinking that any international forum will help to pave the way for an enlightened world government. Baron Robert de Rothschild represents the latter by thinking that cultural unity must precede political unity and, therefore, a federal union should be limited to democracies in the Western tradition.

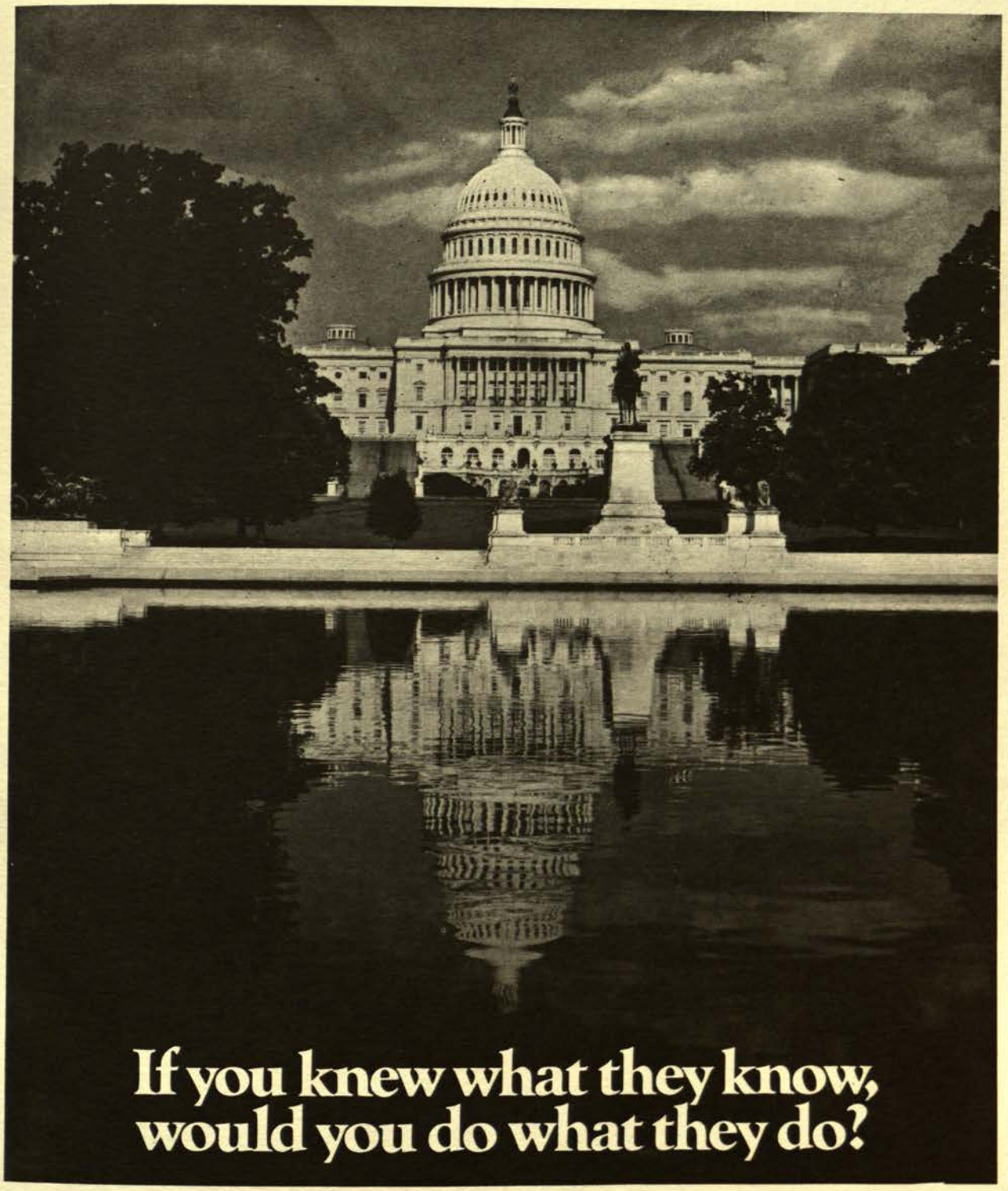
DESPITE the decline of the Federal Union organization, inter-democratic federal union has never ceased to be a relevant and worthy goal. It offers the most sensible alternative on matters of defense, as a federal union of the United States, the European community, and other democracies would present a more credible deterrent to the Soviet Union at less cost, through greater standardization and integration of forces. Such a union would also halt the proliferation of weapons by eliminating separate national nuclear stockpiles and by ending the competition among the military-industrial complexes of the democracies. President Eisenhower estimated that "if we got effective political union in the Atlantic we could cut our defense cost by half."

It is important to strengthen Atlantic ties at once. The immediate threat to Europe from the Soviet Union lies not in missiles but in a propaganda campaign began by Andropov (and continued by Chernenko) dubbed "the peace offensive." As Professor Terry McNeil of the University of Hull in England writes, the peace offensive "has two priorities: mobilising public opinion against NATO's defense policy; [and] driving a wedge between Europe and the United States." A federal union would weaken the Kremlin's peace offensive and strengthen Europe's self-confidence. Moreover, a union would be a more positive entity than the current alliance. An alliance is always *against* something while a union exists on its own merits.

Besides fostering greater military efficiency, a federal union would create the largest free trade zone in the world, which would allow for greater economic vitality in all the member nations. Even if certain regions were to suffer economically, a union would provide for the free movement of labor to where labor is needed. It would lead to more sharing of the cultural, educational, and scientific resources of the member nations. It would lead to a great increase in joint ventures among the democracies in social programs, Third World development, and technology—perhaps even an inter-democratic space program.

In 1979, Representative Henry Reuss (D-WI) stated, "Though 40 years have passed, *Union Now*'s ideas are as fresh and vital today as when newly minted. They have lost nothing of their unique blend of idealism and pragmatism . . ." It will be one of the great political comebacks if the new Federal Union staff, related groups in Europe, and the growing interdependence of the world's democracies combine to return Federal Union and its goals to the political mainstream.





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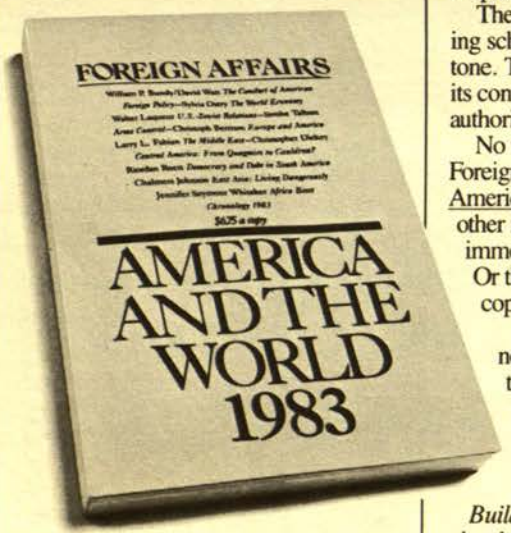
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